

A Combined Spectral Analysis Method for In-Situ Soil Elemental Content Measurement

Jose A. Cortes^{a,*}, Andrzej Korzeniowski^a, Galina Yakubova^b, Aleksandr Kavetskiy^b, H. Allen Torbert^b

^a*University of Texas at Arlington, Arlington, 76019, TX, USA*

^b*USDA ARS NSDL, 36832, Auburn, AL, USA*

Abstract

Traditional methods for measuring soil carbon are often time-consuming, expensive, and require laboratory analysis. Neutron-gamma analysis (NGA) offers an alternative for rapid (practically in-situ) and non-destructive measurement of soil carbon. This paper describes mathematical methods to measure carbon levels in stimulated spectra of soil samples. Monte-Carlo simulations were carried out to create soil neutron stimulated gamma spectra using MCNP6.2 code. Two categories of analysis are investigated: peak fitting, and edgemember fitting, a third method is introduced that combines the two into a single result. Evaluation of their effectiveness determines that the mixed model performed best overall.

Keywords: soil elemental content, gamma-ray spectroscopy, Pulsed Fast Thermal Neutron Analysis, Tagged Neutron Method, MCNP6.2 simulation, peak fitting, edgemember fitting, non-destructive analysis, environmental monitoring, rapid measurement, agricultural soils

1. Introduction

Soil carbon is a key component of soil health and plays a crucial role in the global carbon cycle. Accurate measurement of carbon is essential for

*Corresponding author

Email addresses: jose.cortes@uta.edu (Jose A. Cortes), korzeniowski@uta.edu (Andrzej Korzeniowski), galina.yakubova@usda.gov (Galina Yakubova), aleksandr.kavetskiy@usda.gov (Aleksandr Kavetskiy), allen.torbert@usda.gov (H. Allen Torbert)

measuring soil quality, and its impact on the environment [1] Traditional methods for measuring carbon are often time-consuming, expensive, and require laboratory analysis [2]. In situ spectral analysis offers an alternative for rapid and non-destructive measurement of soil carbon [3].

The Mobile Inelastic Neutron Scattering system (MINS) developed by the National soil dynamics laboratory USDA Agricultural Research Service (NSDL USDA-ARS) uses pulsed fast thermal neutron analysis (PFTNA) [4] or the Tagged Neutron Method (TNM) [3] to measure soil carbon and other elements. Different experimental techniques are implemented in these methods. Regardless, both methods rely on analysis of gamma spectra providing information about the elemental composition of the soil. The analysis methods used to interpret the gamma-ray spectra are Peak Fitting for PFTNA and Endmember Fitting for TNM. This paper presents the combination of these methods in calibration. We simulate the MINS with experimental arrangements of equipment and its spectral acquisition using MCNP6.2 code. As samples, common soil minerals with varied carbon and moisture content. Then we apply different gamma-ray spectroscopy methods, to evaluate and compare their effectiveness in measuring carbon in soil.

2. Physical Procedure and Simulation

The MINS system consists of a neutron generator, gamma-ray detectors, and a data acquisition system mounted on a mobile platform. The neutron generator emits fast neutrons that interact with the soil and the environment. In PFTNA, the detector measures during and between pulses of neutrons. This allows for the separate measurement of an inelastic scattering (INS) and thermo nuclear capture (TNC) spectra. In TNM, the neutron generator emits tagged neutrons, and the detectors are synchronized to capture gamma rays emitted from neutron interactions with the soil only.

2.1. Simulation in MCNP

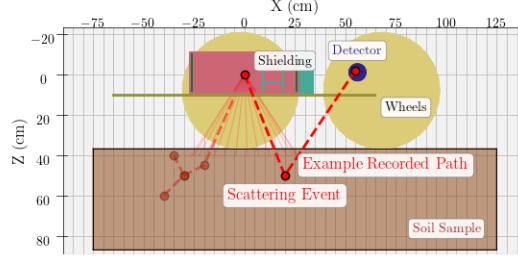


Figure 1: Side View Geometry of MINS Architecture

MCNP6.2 [5] was used to simulate gamma-ray spectra resulting from neutron interaction with elements in soil samples. The resulting gamma rays that reach the detector is recorded. Each simulation modeled a soil sample undergoing neutron activation with a base soil mineral and varying concentrations of carbon and moisture content. The geometry was set up to mimic in situ measurement conditions, with a neutron source placed above a soil slab and a detector positioned to capture emitted gamma rays [6]. In Figure 1, the side view of the MCNP simulation setup is shown, highlighting the arrangement of the neutron source, soil slab, and detector. The neutron generator produces neutrons in solid angle 0.4 sr directed down to soil (like in TNM modification of MINS). In this case, neutrons only interact with the soil, causing the emission of gamma rays characteristic of the elements present in the sample. The gamma-ray detectors capture these emissions, and the data acquisition system records the spectra for analysis.

In Figure 2, the top view of the MCNP simulation setup is presented, providing a clear view of the spatial arrangement of the components, including the shielding around the neutron source and detector, as well as the wheels used for mobility in field applications.

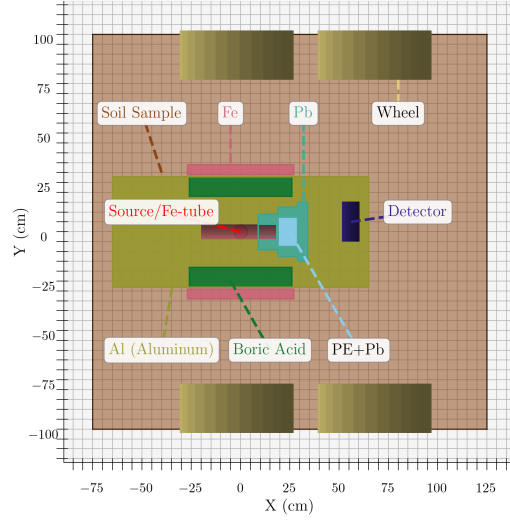


Figure 2: Cross section of MCNP simulation setup showing wheels and shielding (Top View)

Key simulation parameters include:

- **Neutron source energy 14.1 MeV:** API120 portable neutron (D-T generator) generator [7]
- **Soil slab dimensions:** 200 cm $\times$ 200 cm $\times$ 50 cm [8]
- **Detector type:** LaBr detector
- **Tally:** F8 (pulse height tally) for gamma spectra

Table 1: Architectural Chemical Identifiers			
Material	Element	ID	Weight %
PE+Pb	C	6000	4.2860
	H	1001	0.7140
	Pb	82000	95.0000
Pb	Pb	82000	100.0000
Boric Acid	H	1001	4.8535
	B10	5010	3.4981
	B11	5011	13.9923
	O	8016	77.6561
Al	Al	13027	100.0000
Fe-tube	C	006000.50c	0.0400
	Si	014000.60c	0.5000
	P	015031.50c	0.0230
	S	016000.60c	0.0150
	Cr	024000.50c	18.9998
	Mn	025055.60c	1.0000
	Fe	026000.50c	70.1723
	Ni	028000.50c	9.2499
Fe	Fe	26000	100.0000
Detector	Br79	35079	29.4600
	Br81	35081	30.6900
	La139	57139	34.8500
	Ce140	58140	5.0000
Wheel	H	1001	11.8371
	C	6000	88.1629

Table 1 lists the architectural chemicals and their identifiers for the soil elements. Table 2 lists the identifiers for the soil elements.

Table 2: Soil Chemical Identifiers							
Element	C	H	O	Si	Na	Al	K
MCNP Identifier	6000	1001	8016	14000	11023	13027	19000

2.2. Common Soil Minerals

To investigate the effectiveness of gamma spectra analysis methods for soil carbon measurement, we simulate common soil minerals, including Quartz,

Feldspar and Mica [9]. This data serves as a foundation for applying various analysis techniques.

Table 3: The elemental weight composition of common soil minerals

Material	C %	H %	O %	Si %	Na %	Al %	K %
Carbon	100.0	0.0	0.0	0.0	0.0	0.0	0.0
Water	0.0	11.2	88.8	0.0	0.0	0.0	0.0
Quartz	0.0	0.0	53.3	46.7	0.0	0.0	0.0
Feldspar	0.0	0.0	48.8	32.1	8.8	10.3	0.0
Mica	0.0	0.5	48.2	21.2	0.0	20.3	9.8

Table 3 presents the elemental weight composition of common soil minerals used in the simulations. To measure the effectiveness of analysis methods for carbon measurement, we simulate combinations of soil minerals with varying carbon and water content. The simulations range from 0% to 15% carbon (0%, 1%, ..., 15%) and from 0% to 20% (0%, 5%, ..., 20%) water content by weight.

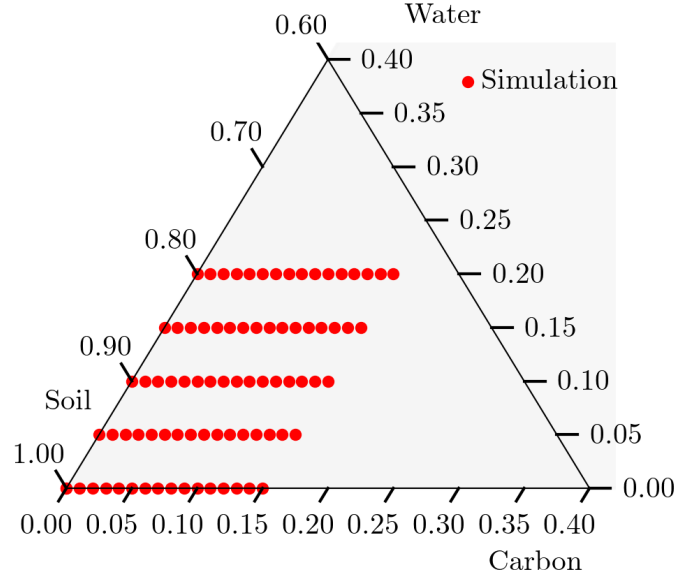


Figure 3: Simulated combinations of soil carbon and water levels

2.3. Gamma Ray Spectra

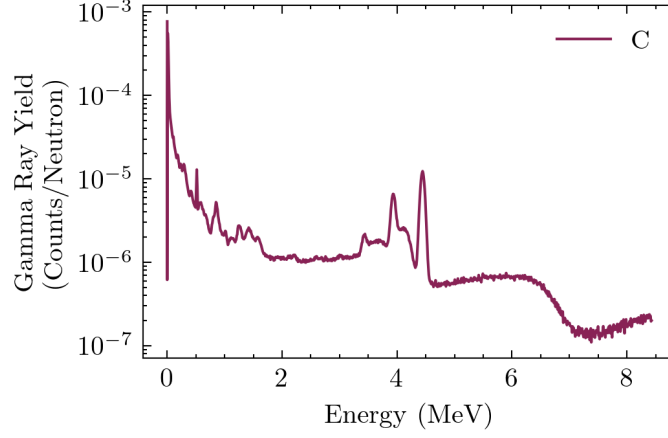


Figure 4: Example Simulated Carbon Spectrum

As shown in Figure 4, spectra are a representation of the energy distribution of gamma rays captured by a detector. They are typically displayed as a graph with energy bins (or bands) on the x-axis and counts (or intensity) per neutron (in simulation) on the y-axis. The observed spectrum $O(E)$ can be represented by the integral [10]:

$$O(E) = \int_0^\infty R(E, E_0) \cdot I(E_0) dE_0 \quad (1)$$

Here, $I(E_0)$ is the incident spectrum for all possible incident energies, and $R(E, E_0)$ is the detector response function, which accounts for the efficiency of the detector.

This equation can be discretized as:

$$\begin{bmatrix} O_1 \\ \vdots \\ O_m \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} R_{11} & R_{12} & \cdots & R_{1m} \\ \vdots & \vdots & & \vdots \\ R_{m1} & R_{m2} & \cdots & R_{mm} \end{bmatrix} \times \begin{bmatrix} I_1 \\ \vdots \\ I_m \end{bmatrix} + \begin{bmatrix} \epsilon_1 \\ \vdots \\ \epsilon_m \end{bmatrix} \quad (2)$$

where m is the number of energy bins, ϵ_i ($i = 1, \dots, m$) is noise and R_{ij} is the probability that an incident gamma-ray having an energy falling into bin i will be detected in bin j .

2.4. Gaussian Energy Broadening as Detector Response

The F8 tally tracks the energy detected by the system, or incident spectra. To model the deficiency in the detectors observed resolution, a response function is applied. The response function used is Gaussian energy broadening (GEB) is a model for detector response. The effects of which can be seen in Figure 5. It is applied in simulations by a random sampling of a Gaussian distribution as such:

$$E' = E + \Delta E \quad (3)$$

where E is the true energy of the incoming particle, ΔE is a random variable sampled from a Gaussian distribution defined by the full width at half maximum (FWHM):

$$\text{FWHM} = a + b\sqrt{E} + cE^2, \quad (4)$$

where E is the energy of the particle. The units of a , b , and c are MeV, $\text{MeV}^{1/2}$, and MeV^{-1} , respectively. The energy actually scored is sampled from a Gaussian with that FWHM. The parameters a , b , and c were determined experimentally as -0.026198 0.059551 -0.037176 respectively [5].

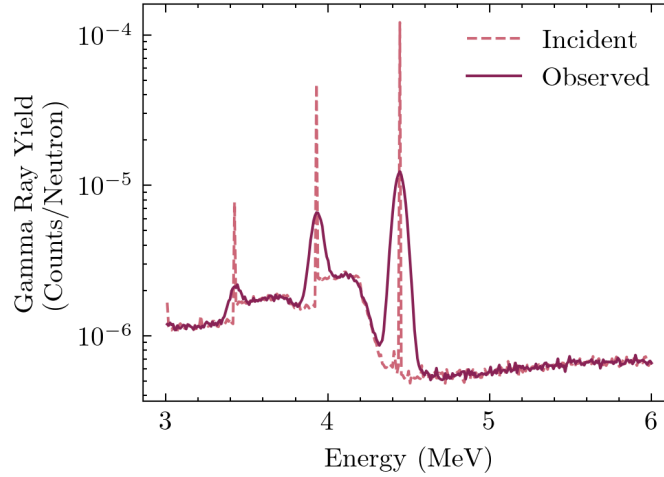


Figure 5: Response Function: Gaussian Energy Broadening (GEB)

2.5. Effects on Spectral Readings

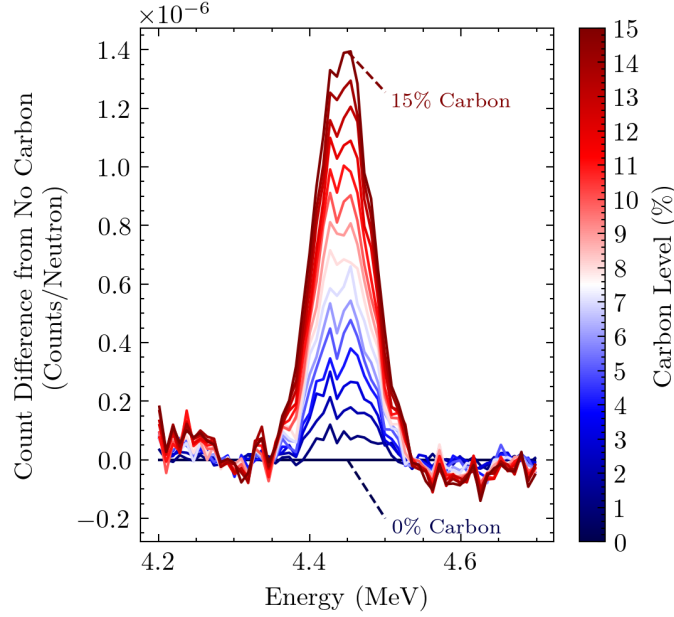


Figure 6: Carbon effect on Feldspar Spectrum

The spectral readings obtained from the MCNP simulations provide a detailed distribution of the gamma-ray emissions from the soil samples per neutron, similar to what would be measured in a real-world scenario. Spectrums can be used to identify the presence of specific elements based on their characteristic energy peaks.

The effect of the carbon on the spectral readings can be seen near Carbons 4.44 MeV gamma peak in Figure 6. As the carbon content increases, the peak becomes more pronounced. Analysis methods can use this information to determine the carbon content of the soil.

As seen in Figure 7, peaks from Oxygen and Silicon interfere with the carbon peak, caused by gamma emissions from Oxygen and Silicon in the soil. This has an effect on the analysis that needs to be accounted for when determining the carbon content in the soil.

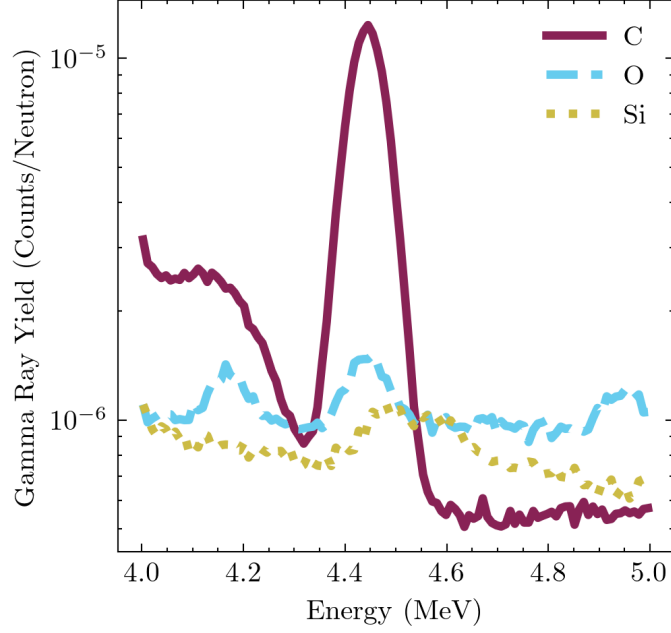


Figure 7: Carbon compared to Oxygen and Silicon gamma peaks

3. Data Analysis Methods

3.1. Curve Fitting

Algorithm 1 Curve Fitting Procedure

Require: Data points (x_i, y_i) , model function $f(x, \text{params})$.

- 1: Initialize parameters params_0 .
 - 2: Define loss function: $L(\text{params}) = \sum_i (y_i - f(x_i, \text{params}))^2$.
 - 3: Use optimization algorithm to find $\text{params}_{\text{opt}}$ that minimize $L(\text{params})$.
 - 4: **return** Fitted parameters $\text{params}_{\text{opt}}$ and fitted curve $f(x, \text{params}_{\text{opt}})$.
-

The curve fitting procedure begins by collecting data points (x_i, y_i) and selecting a suitable model function

$f(x, \text{params})$. Initial parameter values params_0 are chosen, and a loss function is defined as the sum of squared residuals: $L(\text{params}) = \sum_i (y_i - f(x_i, \text{params}))^2$. An optimization algorithm is then employed to determine the parameter set $\text{params}_{\text{opt}}$ that minimizes the loss function. The result is a set of fitted parameters and the corresponding fitted curve $f(x, \text{params}_{\text{opt}})$.

This method is applied with the `scipy.optimize.curve_fit` function from the scipy python package [11], which utilizes either the Levenberg-Marquardt algorithm [12] (for unconstrained problems) or the Trust Region Reflective (TRF) algorithm [13] (for constrained problems).

3.2. Peak Baseline Fitting

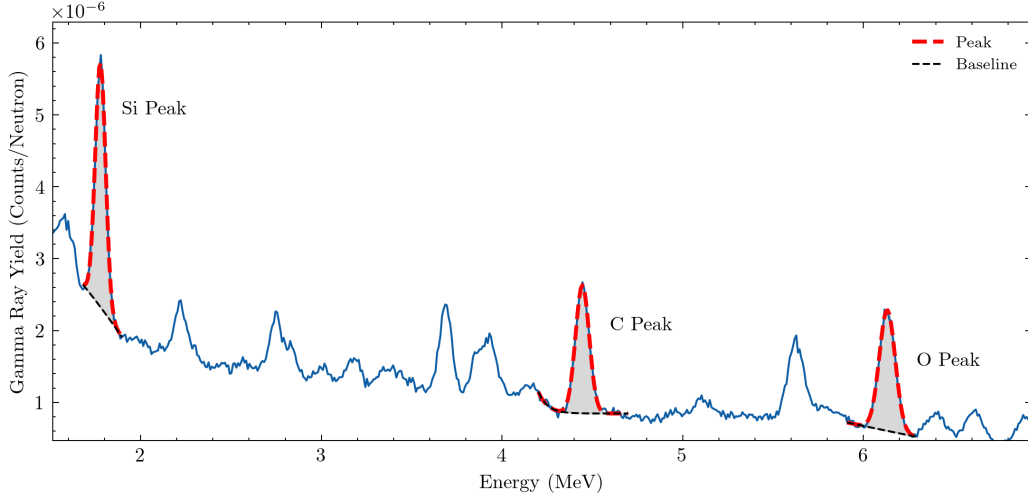


Figure 8: Peak Baseline fitting example for feldspar spectrum at 14% carbon level.

Peak fitting as shown in Figure 8 involves using the least-squares method in identifying and quantifying the baseline and peaks in the spectral data that correspond to specific soil components [14]. This method is useful for extracting information about the concentration of individual elements in the soil. For effective peak fitting, the data is filtered to focus on the peak area.

The fitting function is defined as:

$$F_f = F_p + F_b \quad (5)$$

where F_p is the peak function (e.g., Gaussian) and F_b is the baseline function (e.g., linear or exponential falloff).

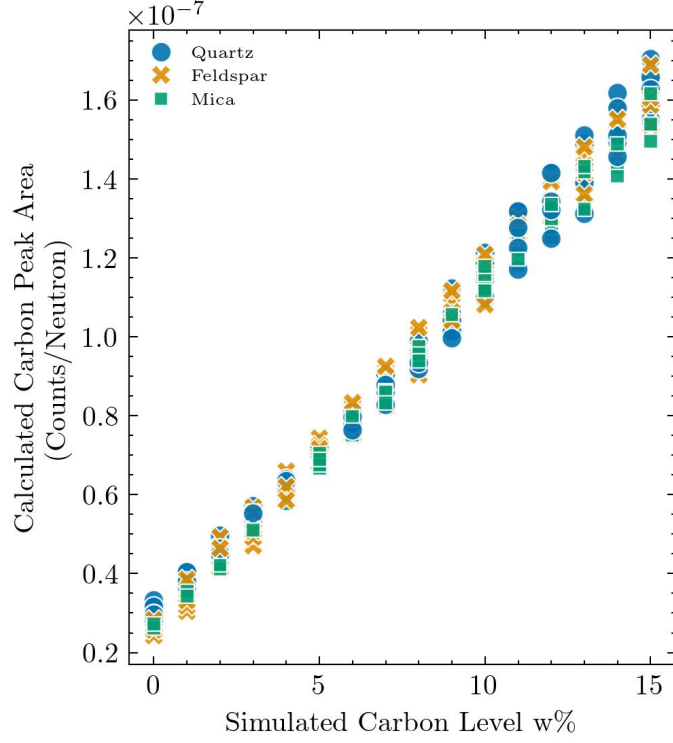


Figure 9: Peak areas are correlated with soil carbon levels over all mineral/carbon/water combinations

Table 4: Function parameterizations for peak fitting

Function Type	Example Expression
Peak	
Gaussian	$a \cdot \exp(-((x - b)^2)/c^2) + d$
Baseline	
Linear	$ax + b$
Exponential Falloff	$a \cdot \exp(-b \cdot x) + c$

After curve fitting, the baseline function is subtracted from the fitted function to isolate the peak, and the area under the peak is calculated using the Simpsons method implemented by `scipy.integrate.simpson` [15] to quantify the concentration of the corresponding element or compound in the

soil. As shown in Figure 9, the peak areas are correlated with the carbon levels in the soil samples. The variance in peak area between samples with similar carbon levels may be attributed to other soil components affecting the peak fitting. This includes elements such as oxygen and silicon, the latter of which, as in Figure 10, is also shown to have a non-negligible correlation with the carbon peak area.

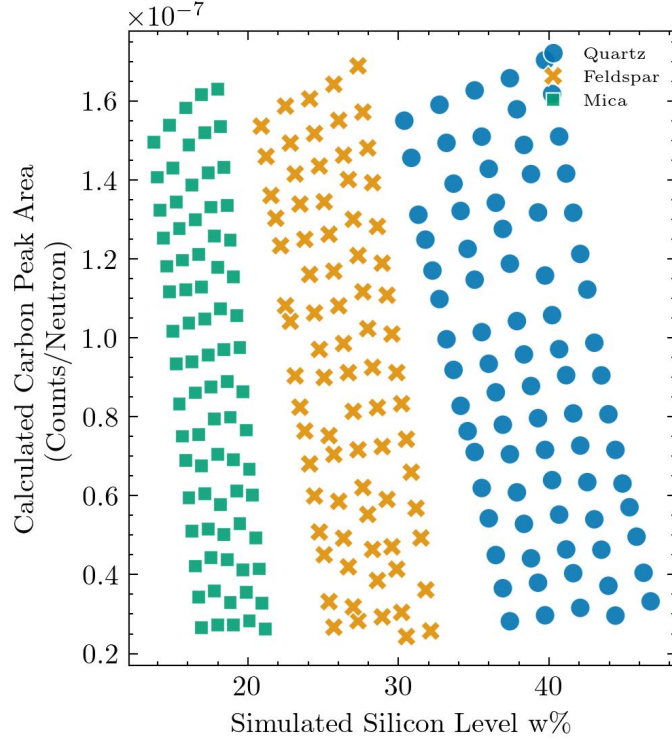


Figure 10: Silicon levels are correlated with carbon peak areas over all mineral/carbon/water combinations

3.3. Spectral Mixture of Endmembers

Spectral results can be modeled as a mixture of several component spectra, known as endmembers. This approach is useful in scenarios where the observed spectrum is a mixture of distributions. The linear spectral mixture model [16] can be expressed as:

$$O(E)_i = \sum_{k=1}^n t_{ik} O_{ik} + \epsilon_i \quad \text{and} \quad \sum_{k=1}^n t_{ik} = 1, \quad (6)$$

Where $O(E)_i$ is the intensity in bin i and can be represented as a weighted sum of the intensities from each endmember O_{ik} , with coefficients given by the fractions t_{ik} . The term ϵ_i accounts for error.

3.4. Spectral Mixture Fitting of Endmembers

The Spectral Mixture Fitting of Endmembers leverages the Spectral Mixture of Endmembers model Eq 6 to fit known spectral components to the observed spectrum. This was applied by Bishnoi et al. [17] using 3 endmembers. The goal is to express the observed spectrum as a linear combination of several known component spectra (endmembers), each representing a specific soil constituent. To do this, we set $t_{ik} = A_k$, where A_k are the coefficients representing the concentration of each component in the mixture.

The combined spectral function is defined as:

$$F_{c_i} = \sum_k A_k \cdot O_{k_i} = A_C \cdot O_{C_i} + \dots + A_{Na} \cdot O_{Na_i} \quad (7)$$

where F_{c_i} is the combined spectral function at bin i , and O_{k_i} are the observed spectral functions of individual components at bin i . In Figure 11, we illustrate the result of the fitting process. Beginning with the spectrum with the highest coefficient, we stack plot the linear combination of the component spectra weighted by their respective coefficients A_k . The fitting is performed using the curve fitting procedure outlined earlier, F_c does not match its observed spectrum exactly. This is further discussed in the conclusion.

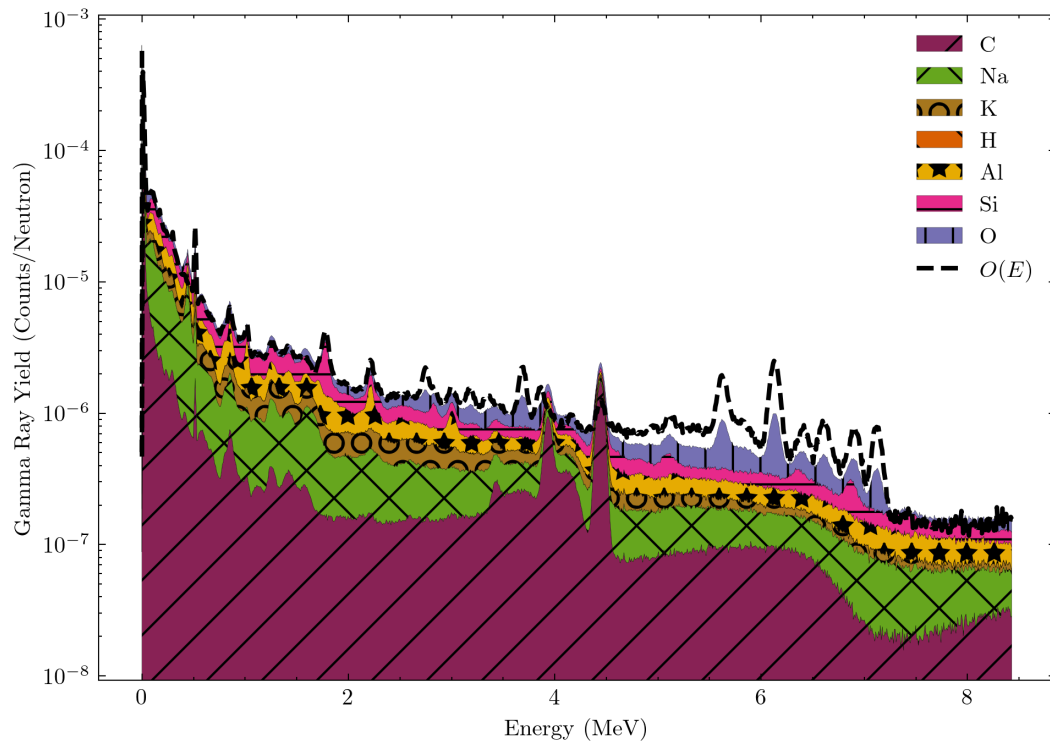


Figure 11: Stack plot of edgemember fitting result for feldspar spectrum at 2% carbon 10% water level.

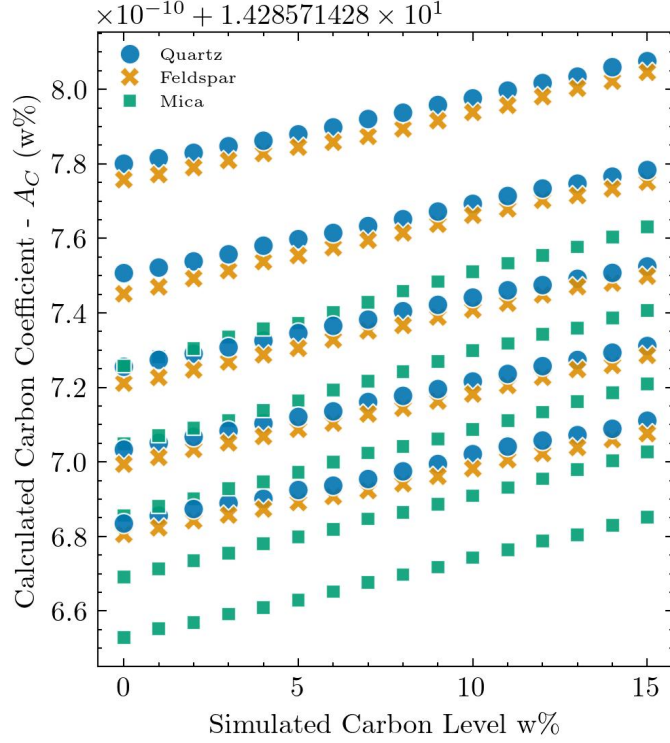


Figure 12: Carbon Coefficient is correlated with soil carbon levels over all mineral/carbon/water combinations

The carbon coefficient A_C is then used for calibration against known carbon concentrations to predict the carbon content in unknown samples. We can see by Figure 12 that there is a positive correlation between the calculated carbon coefficients from the SMFE method and the actual carbon levels in the soil samples. Unlike in peak fitting, there is a greater spread of predicted carbon coefficients for similar carbon levels. This is because the effect of silicone and oxygen has a greater effect on the methods calculation.

3.5. Multivariate Calibration Using Singular Value Decomposition

We employ a multivariate calibration technique. We extract multiple features from the spectral data, such as peak area via Peak Baseline Fitting and the carbon coefficient from edgemember fitting. The data can be represented in matrix form as:

$$G = \begin{bmatrix} g_{11} & g_{12} & \cdots & g_{1n} \\ g_{21} & g_{22} & \cdots & g_{2n} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ g_{m1} & g_{m2} & \cdots & g_{mn} \end{bmatrix}$$

for soil sample m and augmented feature n (peak area, edgemember coefficients). A bias term is also included in the model to account for any constant offset in the data.

The relationship between these features and the carbon content can be modeled as:

$$y = Gx + \epsilon$$

where y is the vector of observed carbon content, x is the vector of coefficients to be determined, and ϵ represents the error term.

To calibrate our model, we employ Singular Value Decomposition (SVD) to analyze the relationship between the features found in analysis and the carbon content.

A matrix G , can be decomposed using SVD as follows:

$$G = U\Sigma V^T \quad (8)$$

Using this decomposition, we can find the SVD solution to least squares, or convex optimization problems. This allows us to determine the coefficients that best fit our model to the observed data.

To solve for the coefficients x in the equation $Gx = b$, where b is the observed data, we can use the pseudoinverse of G :

$$x = G^+b \quad (9)$$

where G^+ is the pseudoinverse of G . The pseudoinverse can be computed from the SVD components as:

$$G^+ = V\Sigma^+U^T \quad (10)$$

where Σ^+ is obtained by taking the reciprocal of the non-zero singular values in Σ and transposing the resulting matrix.

For example, if Σ is a diagonal matrix with singular values $\sigma_1, \sigma_2, \dots, \sigma_r$ (and possibly zeros for the remaining entries), then Σ^+ is given by:

$$\Sigma^+ = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{1}{\sigma_1} & 0 & \dots & 0 \\ 0 & \frac{1}{\sigma_2} & \dots & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \dots & \frac{1}{\sigma_r} \\ 0 & 0 & \dots & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \dots & 0 \end{bmatrix} \quad (11)$$

where the reciprocals are taken only for the nonzero singular values.

In our implementation, we utilize the `numpy.linalg.svd` function from the NumPy [18] Python package to perform the singular value decomposition.

The final coefficients obtained from the SVD calibration are then used to predict the carbon content based on the extracted features from introduced spectral data:

$$\hat{y} = G_{test}x \quad (12)$$

where $\hat{y}$ is the predicted carbon content.

4. Comparison and Results

4.1. Metrics for Model Evaluation

To compare the performance of different models, we split the data randomly between 70% training and 30% testing sets. We vary the combination of methods used, then calibrate the results of those methods to the carbon in the testing set using SVD. We use the Mean Squared Error (MSE) between the defined and predicted carbon values. We define the error for each tested sample i as:

$$\text{Error}_i = (y_i - \hat{y}_i)^2 \quad (13)$$

where y_i is the simulated carbon content and $\hat{y}_i$ is the predicted carbon content for sample i in the testing set. The Mean Squared Error (MSE) is then calculated as:

$$\text{MSE} = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^N \text{Error}_i \quad (14)$$

where N is the total number of tested samples.

4.2. Changing Variables for Multivariate Analysis

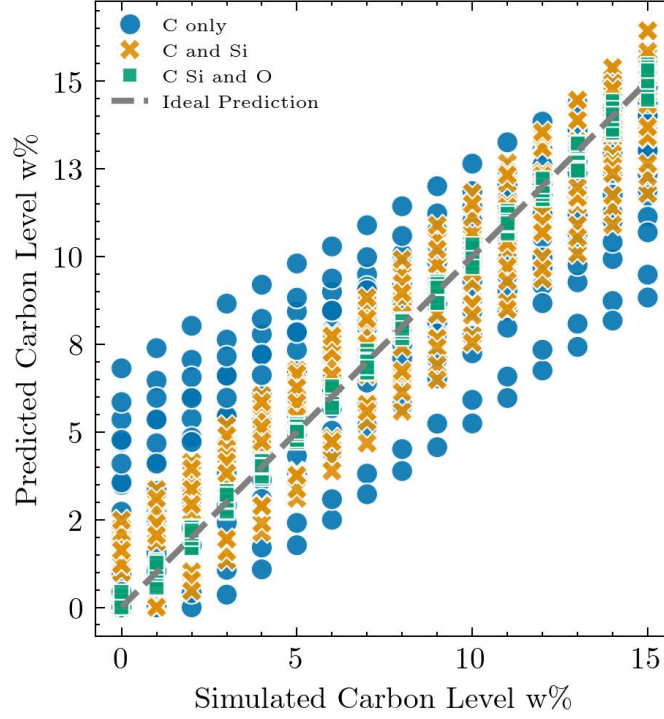


Figure 13: Multivariate calibration improves accuracy

The effects of multivariate analysis can be seen most clearly with the Edgemember Fitting method as in Figure 13. By including additional variables such as silicon and oxygen coefficients alongside carbon, the model can better account for overlapping spectral features and interferences, and the predictions become more accurate. The most accurate of both methods was the multivariate analysis including carbon, silicon, and oxygen edgemember coefficients and peak areas as variables respectively as seen in Table 5. Combining both the peak areas and the component fitting coefficients into a single model improved the accuracy further.

Table 5: Mean Squared Error (MSE) Comparison of Different Calibration Methods

Method	MSE		
<i>Variable Element:</i>	<i>C, Si, O</i>	<i>C, Si</i>	<i>C</i>
Combined	1.98e-06		
Edgemember Coeff.	4.28e-06	2.11e-4	7.52e-4
Peak Fitting	1.00e-05	1.37e-05	1.79e-05

4.3. Conclusion and Discussion

This study demonstrates the use of multi-variate calibration to enhance soil carbon content predictions by integrating features from various analysis methods.

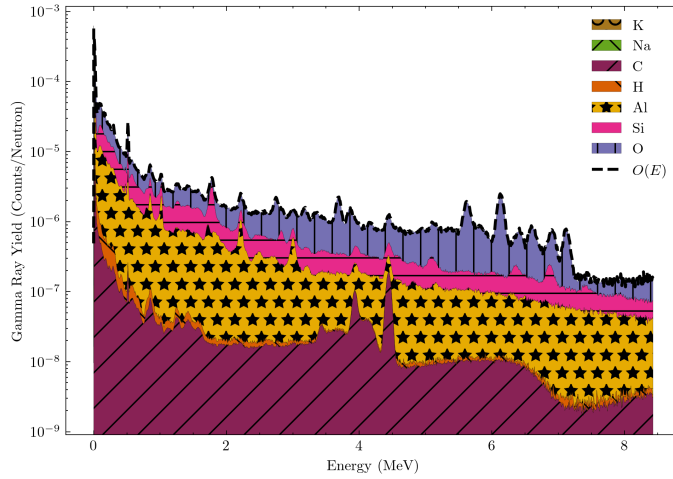


Figure 14: Edgemember Fitting (MSRE Error Metric)

In Figure 11 we observe that the fitted coefficients do not sum exactly to the observed spectrum. Furthermore, the final coefficients are close to their initial values. This is because the curve fitting error is based on MSE minimization, which is more sensitive to larger values found in lower energy regions. As shown in Figure 14 and Table 6 MSRE (Mean Squared Relative Error) improves this.

Table 6: Comparison of coefficients using MSRE fitting

Element	Coefficient	True
C	0.0156	0.0200
H	0.1616	0.0156
O	0.4777	0.5130
Si	0.1769	0.1862
Na	0.0000	0.0000
Al	0.1681	0.1788
K	0.0000	0.0864

As seen in Table 7 in the Univariate case, this results in a lower prediction error, but in the Multivariate case, the error of the predictions remains fixed, while the MSE version improves to be better than its counterpart.

Table 7: Comparison of Different Edgemember Fitting Error Metrics

Variables	MSE Fitted	MSRE Fitted
C Si and O	4.28e-06	1.47e-05
C and Si	2.11e-04	2.28e-05
C only	7.52e-04	2.29e-05

Our results demonstrate a significant performance increase, showing that this combined approach yields more accurate predictions of soil carbon content than either method used alone. However, there are many soil types, the soil minerals listed by Sposito [9] are only one part of the possible makeups that the MINS would encounter in the field. The simulations presented also do not include variance in density. More detailed simulations and spectra to match PFTNA and TNM methods would help to further validate the results presented here.

The calibration step can further include in its calculations the results of various methods. As the dataset grows, more methods of analysis such as convolutional neural networks as presented in Kim et al. [19]. Other models, such as deep learning models, or other deconvolution methods can be ensembled together to improve accuracy further.

References

- [1] Soil processes and the carbon cycle. doi:10.1201/9780203739273.

- [2] A. De Ros, I. Piccoli, L. Sartori, B. Portelli, G. Serra, N. Dal Ferro, F. Morari, Advancing soil texture and organic carbon spatial variability assessment: Integrating proximal gamma-ray spectroscopy and electromagnetic induction via data fusion for site-independent analysis, CATENA 254 (2025) 108980. doi:10.1016/j.catena.2025.108980.
URL <https://www.sciencedirect.com/science/article/pii/S0341816225002826>
- [3] G. Yakubova, A. Kavetskiy, S. A. Prior, H. A. Torbert, Tagged neutron method for carbon analysis of large soil samples 150 127–134. doi:10.1016/j.apradiso.2019.05.028.
URL <https://www.sciencedirect.com/science/article/pii/S0969804319301381>
- [4] G. Yakubova, A. Kavetskiy, S. A. Prior, H. A. Torbert, Measuring and mapping moisture content in agricultural fields by neutron-gamma analysis 248 106444. doi:10.1016/j.still.2024.106444.
URL <https://www.sciencedirect.com/science/article/pii/S0167198724004458>
- [5] C. J. Werner, J. C. Armstrong, F. B. Brown, J. S. Bull, L. Casswell, L. J. Cox, D. A. Dixon, R. A. Forster, III, J. T. Goorley, H. G. Hughes, III, J. A. Favorite, R. L. Martz, S. G. Mashnik, M. E. Rising, C. J. Solomon, Jr., A. Sood, J. E. Sweezy, A. J. Zukaitis, C. A. Anderson, J. S. Elson, J. W. Durkee, Jr., R. C. Johns, G. W. McKinney, G. E. McMath, J. S. Hendricks, D. B. Pelowitz, R. E. Prael, T. E. Booth, M. R. James, M. L. Fensin, T. A. Wilcox, B. C. Kiedrowski, MCNP user’s manual code version 6.2.
URL <http://permalink.lanl.gov/object/tr?what=info:lanl-repo/lareport/LA-UR-17-29981>
- [6] A. Kavetskiy, G. Yakubova, S. A. Prior, H. A. Torbert, A. Kavetskiy, G. Yakubova, S. A. Prior, H. A. Torbert, Neutron-stimulated gamma ray analysis of soil, in: New Insights on Gamma Rays, IntechOpen. doi:10.5772/68014.
URL <https://www.intechopen.com/chapters/54779>
- [7] A. Kavetskiy, G. Yakubova, S. A. Prior, H. A. Torbert, Energy correlated timing spectra in target neutron techniques 433 80–86.

- doi:10.1016/j.nimb.2018.07.028.
 URL <https://www.sciencedirect.com/science/article/pii/S0168583X18304476>
- [8] L. Wielopolski, O. Doron, Nuclear spectroscopy for *in situ* soil elemental analysis: Monte carlo simulations 70 (7) 1085–1088. doi:10.1016/j.apradiso.2011.11.027.
 URL <https://www.sciencedirect.com/science/article/pii/S0969804311005628>
- [9] G. Sposito, The Chemistry of Soils, Oxford University Press, Incorporated.
 URL <http://ebookcentral.proquest.com/lib/utar1/detail.action?docID=415840>
- [10] L. Meng, D. Ramsden, An inter-comparison of three spectral-deconvolution algorithms for gamma-ray spectroscopy, IEEE Transactions on Nuclear Science 47 (4) (2000) 1329–1336. doi:10.1109/23.872973.
 URL <https://ieeexplore.ieee.org/document/872973>
- [11] P. Virtanen, R. Gommers, T. E. Oliphant, M. Haberland, T. Reddy, D. Cournapeau, E. Burovski, P. Peterson, W. Weckesser, J. Bright, S. J. van der Walt, M. Brett, J. Wilson, K. J. Millman, N. Mayorov, A. R. J. Nelson, E. Jones, R. Kern, E. Larson, C. J. Carey, I. Polat, Y. Feng, E. W. Moore, J. VanderPlas, D. Laxalde, J. Perktold, R. Cimrman, I. Henriksen, E. A. Quintero, C. R. Harris, A. M. Archibald, A. H. Ribeiro, F. Pedregosa, P. van Mulbregt, SciPy 1.0: fundamental algorithms for scientific computing in python 17 (3) 261–272, publisher: Nature Publishing Group. doi:10.1038/s41592-019-0686-2.
 URL <https://www.nature.com/articles/s41592-019-0686-2>
- [12] J. J. Moré, The levenberg-marquardt algorithm: Implementation and theory, in: Numerical Analysis, Springer, Berlin, Heidelberg, pp. 105–116, ISSN: 1617-9692. doi:10.1007/BFb0067700.
 URL <https://link.springer.com/chapter/10.1007/BFb0067700>
- [13] M. A. Branch, T. F. Coleman, Y. Li, A subspace, interior, and conjugate gradient method for large-scale bound-constrained minimization problems 21 (1) 1–23, publisher: Society for Industrial and Applied

Mathematics. doi:10.1137/S1064827595289108.

URL <https://epubs.siam.org/doi/10.1137/S1064827595289108>

- [14] R. P. Gardner, X. Ai, C. R. Peeples, J. Wang, K. Lee, J. L. Peeples, A. Calderon, Use of an iterative convolution approach for qualitative and quantitative peak analysis in low resolution gamma-ray spectra 652 (1) 544–549. doi:10.1016/j.nima.2010.12.224.
URL <https://www.sciencedirect.com/science/article/pii/S0168900210030500>
- [15] K. Cartwright, Simpson’s Rule Cumulative Integration with MS Excel and Irregularly-spaced Data, Journal of Mathematical Sciences & Mathematics Education 12 (29) (Sep. 2017).
URL https://www.researchgate.net/publication/309386283_Simpson’s_Rule_Integration_with_MS_Excel_and_Irregularly-spaced_Data
- [16] J. B. Adams, D. E. Sabol, V. Kapos, R. Almeida Filho, D. A. Roberts, M. O. Smith, A. R. Gillespie, Classification of multispectral images based on fractions of endmembers: Application to land-cover change in the Brazilian Amazon, Remote Sensing of Environment 52 (2) (1995) 137–154. doi:10.1016/0034-4257(94)00098-8.
URL <https://www.sciencedirect.com/science/article/pii/0034425794000988>
- [17] S. Bishnoi, R. G. Thomas, A. Sarkar, P. S. Sarkar, A. Sinha, A. Saxena, S. C. Gadkari, Modeling of tagged neutron method for explosive detection using GEANT4, Nuclear Instruments and Methods in Physics Research Section A: Accelerators, Spectrometers, Detectors and Associated Equipment 923 (2019) 26–33. doi:10.1016/j.nima.2019.01.037.
URL <https://www.sciencedirect.com/science/article/pii/S0168900219300750>
- [18] C. R. Harris, K. J. Millman, S. J. van der Walt, R. Gommers, P. Virtanen, D. Cournapeau, E. Wieser, J. Taylor, S. Berg, N. J. Smith, R. Kern, M. Picus, S. Hoyer, M. H. van Kerkwijk, M. Brett, A. Haldane, J. F. del Río, M. Wiebe, P. Peterson, P. Gérard-Marchant, K. Sheppard, T. Reddy, W. Weckesser, H. Abbasi, C. Gohlke, T. E. Oliphant, Array programming with NumPy, Nature 585 (7825) (2020) 357–362.

doi:10.1038/s41586-020-2649-2.

URL <https://doi.org/10.1038/s41586-020-2649-2>

- [19] W. Kim, K. Ko, J. Park, S. Lee, H. Yun, G. Cho, Deep learning-based gamma spectroscopic analysis considering multiple variables for in situ applications 226 112261. doi:10.1016/j.radphyschem.2024.112261.
URL <https://www.sciencedirect.com/science/article/pii/S0969806X24007539>